

DIFFERENTIAL GEOMETRY AND LIE GROUPS

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Fifth Semester

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Chapter 1

PRELIMINARIES AND MANIFOLDS

July 20th.

The primary reference for this course will be Loring Tu's *An Introduction to Manifolds*. Prerequisites include Analysis of Several Variables, Linear Algebra, and Topology. The mid-term will account for 35% of the final grade, quizzes and student lectures will account for 15%, and the final exam will account for 50%.

Simply put, a manifold is any object that is locally Euclidean.

1.1 Calculus on $\mathbb{R}^n$

A point p or element in $\mathbb{R}^n$ is associated with an n -tuple of coordinates $x^1, x^2, \dots, x^n$. Let U be an open neighbourhood of p in $\mathbb{R}^n$. For a non-negative integer k , we say that a function $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is C^k -continuous at $p \in U$ if all partial derivatives of f of order $\leq k$ exist and are continuous at p . f is said to be C^∞ or *smooth* if f is C^k for all $k \geq 0$. f is C^k (or C^∞) on U if it is C^k (or C^∞) at every point in U .

If f happens to be a vector-valued function, i.e. $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}^m$, we say $f = (f^1, f^2, \dots, f^m)$ is C^k (or C^∞) at p if each component function $f^i : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is C^k (or C^∞) at p . f is C^k (or C^∞) on U if it is C^k (or C^∞) at every point in U .

Definition 1.1. Let R be a commutative ring with unity. We term A to be an R -algebra if A is a commutative ring with unity and an R -module, and for $r \in R$ and $a, b \in A$, we have $r(ab) = (ra)b = a(rb)$.

In this course, we will be primarily be concerned with the case when R is a field, and A is an R -vector space.

For a subset $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$, we denote $C^k(U)$ (or $C^\infty(U)$) as the set of all C^k (or C^∞) functions from U to $\mathbb{R}$. Note that this is a commutative ring with unity. It is also a vector space over $\mathbb{R}$. Together, $C^k(U)$ (or $C^\infty(U)$) is a (commutative) algebra over $\mathbb{R}$. Moreover, we have the descending chain of subalgebras

$$C^0(U) \supseteq C^1(U) \supseteq C^2(U) \supseteq \dots C^k(U) \supseteq C^{k+1}(U) \supseteq \dots \quad (1.1)$$

with

$$\bigcap_{k \geq 0} C^k(U) = C^\infty(U). \quad (1.2)$$

$f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is termed *real analytic* at $p \in U$ if there exists a neighbourhood $V \subseteq U$ of p such that

$$f(x) = f(p) + \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p)(x^i - p^i) + \dots + \frac{1}{k!} \sum_{1 \leq i_1, \dots, i_k \leq n} \frac{\partial^k f}{\partial x^{i_1} \dots \partial x^{i_k}}(p)(x^{i_1} - p^{i_1}) \dots (x^{i_k} - p^{i_k}) + \dots \quad (1.3)$$

for all $x \in V$. f is said to be real analytic on U if it is real analytic at every point in U . We denote the set of all real analytic functions on U as $C^\omega(U)$. Note that $C^\omega(U) \subseteq C^\infty(U)$.

Theorem 1.2 (*Taylor's theorem*). *Let $p \in U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$, and $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a C^∞ function. Further assume that for all $x \in U$, the line segment from p to x is contained in U (U in this case is said to be star-shaped with respect to p). Then there exist $g_1, \dots, g_n \in C^\infty(U)$ such that, for all $x \in U$,*

$$f(x) = f(p) + \sum_{i=1}^n g_i(x)(x^i - p^i), \quad (1.4)$$

with

$$g_i(p) = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p), \quad 1 \leq i \leq n. \quad (1.5)$$

Proof. Let $x \in U$. Then the line segment $\{p + t(x - p) \mid t \in [0, 1]\}$ is contained in U . Composing f with the map $t \mapsto p + t(x - p)$, we obtain

$$\frac{df}{dt}(p + t(x - p)) = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p + t(x - p))(x^i - p^i). \quad (1.6)$$

Integrating from 0 to 1, we get

$$f(x) - f(p) = \int_0^1 \frac{df}{dt}(p + t(x - p))dt = \sum_{i=1}^n (x^i - p^i) \int_0^1 \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p + t(x - p))dt = \sum_{i=1}^n (x^i - p^i)g_i(x). \quad (1.7)$$

Clearly, because f is C^∞ , each g_i is also C^∞ . Further, we have $g_i(p) = \int_0^1 \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p)dt = \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p)$. ■

Let $p = (p^1, \dots, p^n)$, $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$, and $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be C^∞ at p . The *directional derivative* of f at p in the direction of v is defined as

$$\lim_{t \rightarrow 0} \frac{f(p + tv) - f(p)}{t} = \frac{d}{dt}f(p + tv) \Big|_{t=0} = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{df}{dx^i}(p)v^i. \quad (1.8)$$

From here, we obtain the operator

$$D_v = \sum_{i=1}^n v^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p \quad (1.9)$$

Now consider all pairs of the form (f, U) where $p \in U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is an open neighbourhood of p and $f : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is C^∞ . Define an equivalence relation $\sim$ on this set by declaring $(f, U) \sim (g, V)$ if and only if there exists an open neighbourhood $W \subseteq U \cap V$ of p such that $f|_W = g|_W$. The equivalence class of (f, U) is denoted by $[(f, U)]$, and the set of all such equivalence classes is denoted by $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$. Such an equivalence class $[(f, U)]$ is called the *germ* of f at p . We can give $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ the structure of a commutative ring with unity by defining

$$[(f, U)] + [(g, V)] = [(f + g, U \cap V)], \quad [(f, U)] \cdot [(g, V)] = [(fg, U \cap V)], \quad 1 = [(1, \mathbb{R}^n)]. \quad (1.10)$$

It can also be given the structure of a vector space over $\mathbb{R}$ by defining

$$\lambda[(f, U)] = [(\lambda f, U)], \quad \lambda \in \mathbb{R}. \quad (1.11)$$

Thus, $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ is an $\mathbb{R}$ -algebra. Now, given a germ $\alpha = [(f, U)] \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ and a vector $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$, we define

$$D_v \alpha = \sum_{i=1}^n v^i \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p = v \cdot \nabla f(p). \quad (1.12)$$

Note that the choice of f is immaterial, since if $[(f, U)] = [(g, V)]$, then there exists an open neighbourhood $W \subseteq U \cap V$ of p such that $f|_W = g|_W$, and hence $\nabla f(p) = \nabla g(p)$. One can infer that $D_{\lambda v}(f) = \lambda D_v(f) =$

$D_v(\lambda f)$ and $D_v(f + g) = D_v(f) + D_v(g)$ for all $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$ and $f, g \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$. Thus, D_v is an $\mathbb{R}$ -linear map from $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ to $\mathbb{R}$ (hereforth, we shall use f to also denote the germ $[(f, U)]$ of f at p). Also,

$$D_v(fg) = \sum_{i=1}^n v^i \frac{\partial(fg)}{\partial x^i}(p) = \sum_{i=1}^n v^i \left(f(p) \frac{\partial g}{\partial x^i}(p) + g(p) \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p) \right) = f(p)D_v(g) + g(p)D_v(f). \quad (1.13)$$

Such a property makes D_v what we call a derivation.

Definition 1.3. Any $\mathbb{R}$ -linear map $T : C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ satisfying the Leibniz rule $T(fg) = f(p)T(g) + g(p)T(f)$ for all $f, g \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ is called a *derivation* at p .

One may show that if T is a derivation at p , then $T(1) = 0$.

The set of all derivations at p is denoted by $\mathfrak{D}_p(\mathbb{R}^n)$. It is easy to see that $\mathfrak{D}_p(\mathbb{R}^n)$ is a vector space over $\mathbb{R}$. Now consider the map

$$\theta : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathfrak{D}_p(\mathbb{R}^n), \quad v \mapsto D_v. \quad (1.14)$$

This θ is an $\mathbb{R}$ -linear map (verify). We claim that θ is an isomorphism of real vector spaces. To this end, let $v \in \mathbb{R}^n$ such that $D_v = 0 \in \mathfrak{D}_p(\mathbb{R}^n)$. Then $D_v f = 0$ for all $f \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$. In particular, for the coordinate functions x^i , we have $D_v x^i = v_i = 0$ for all $1 \leq i \leq n$. Thus, $v = 0$, and hence θ is injective. To show surjectivity, we appeal to Taylor's theorem; let $D \in \mathfrak{D}_p(\mathbb{R}^n)$. We claim that $D = D_v$ where $v = (D(x^1), \dots, D(x^n))$. Indeed, for any $f \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$, we have

$$\begin{aligned} D(f) &= D(f(p)) + D\left(\sum_{i=1}^n (x^i - p^i)g_i(x)\right) = 0 + \sum_{i=1}^n ((x^i - p^i)(p)Dg_i(x) + D(x^i - p^i)g_i(p)) \\ &= \sum_{i=1}^n (Dx^i)g_i(p) = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i}(p)Dx^i = D_v(f). \end{aligned} \quad (1.15)$$

Hence, θ is surjective, and we have the desired isomorphism $\mathfrak{D}_p(\mathbb{R}^n) \cong \mathbb{R}^n$.

Note that a germ $f \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ has a valid value at p , but no other point. Hence, we have the evaluation map

$$\text{ev}_p : C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n) \rightarrow \mathbb{R}, \quad [(f, U)] \mapsto f(p). \quad (1.16)$$

The kernel here is $\{[(f, U)] \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n) \mid f(p) = 0\}$, which is an ideal in $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$. For any other element $[(f, U)] \in C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ with $f(p) \neq 0$, a valid inverse is given by $[(f^{-1}, U \setminus \{f = 0\})]$. This makes $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ a local ring.

1.2 Multilinear Algebra

July 22nd.

Hereforth, V shall denote a finite-dimensional real vector space, and V^V shall denote its *dual space* $\text{Hom}_{\mathbb{R}}(V, \mathbb{R})$. If $e_1, \dots, e_n$ are a basis for V , then the *dual basis* of V^V is denoted by $\alpha^1, \dots, \alpha^n \in V^V$, and is defined by $\alpha^i(e_j) = \delta_{i,j}$ for all $1 \leq i, j \leq n$. One may verify that the dual basis $\{\alpha^1, \dots, \alpha^n\}$, induced by the basis $\{e_1, \dots, e_n\}$, is indeed a basis for V^V . S_k shall denote the permutation group on k symbols, satisfying $|S_k| = k!$. For any $\sigma \in S_k$, the sign of σ is denoted by $\text{sgn}(\sigma)$, and is defined as $+1$ if σ is an even permutation, and -1 if σ is an odd permutation.

With notation out of the way, let $k \geq 1$ be an integer. We shall consider the k -tuple $V^k = V \times \dots \times V$ (k times).

Definition 1.4. A mapping $f : V^k \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is said to be *k-linear* if f is linear in each of its k arguments.

A special case is when $k = 2$, in which case f is called a *bilinear form*. Such an $f : V \times V \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ satisfies

$$f(\lambda v + \mu w, u) = \lambda f(v, u) + \mu f(w, u), \quad f(u, \lambda v + \mu w) = \lambda f(u, v) + \mu f(u, w). \quad (1.17)$$

A common example of a bilinear form is any valid inner product $\langle \cdot, \cdot \rangle : V \times V \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ on V . Another example is the determinant $\det : \mathbb{R}^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$, where the vectors are interpreted as the columns of a matrix. We can also write

$$L_k(V) = \{f : V^k \rightarrow \mathbb{R} \mid f \text{ is } k\text{-linear}\}. \quad (1.18)$$

It is easy to see that $L_k(V)$ is an $\mathbb{R}$ -vector space.

Definition 1.5. A k -linear map $f : V^k \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ is called a *symmetric k -linear form* if for all $\sigma \in S_k$,

$$f(v_1, \dots, v_k) = f(v_{\sigma(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma(k)}). \quad (1.19)$$

That is, f is invariant under any permutation of its arguments. Moreover, f is called an *alternating k -linear form* if for all $\sigma \in S_k$,

$$f(v_1, \dots, v_k) = \text{sgn}(\sigma) f(v_{\sigma(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma(k)}). \quad (1.20)$$

One can see that the standard inner product on $\mathbb{R}^n$ is a symmetric bilinear form, and the determinant is an alternating n -linear form. Related to these definitions, we can immediately define the following subspaces of $L_k(V)$:

$$S_k(V) = \{f \in L_k(V) \mid f \text{ is symmetric}\} \subseteq L_k(V), \quad A_k(V) = \{f \in L_k(V) \mid f \text{ is alternating}\} \subseteq L_k(V). \quad (1.21)$$

Currently, our main interest of study is $A_k(V)$, the space of alternating k -linear forms on V . Elements of $A_k(V)$ are termed *alternating k -tensors*. Similarly, those of $S_k(V)$ and $L_k(V)$ are called *symmetric k -tensors* and *k -tensors*, respectively. For $k = 0$, we define $L_0(V) = S_0(V) = A_0(V) = \mathbb{R}$. For $k = 1$, we have $L_1(V) = S_1(V) = A_1(V) = V^V$. We can define the (left) action of S_k on $L_k(V)$ by

$$(\sigma \cdot f)(v_1, \dots, v_k) = f(v_{\sigma(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma(k)}). \quad (1.22)$$

Thus, f is symmetric if $\sigma \cdot f = f$ for all $\sigma \in S_k$, and f is alternating if $\sigma \cdot f = \text{sgn}(\sigma)f$ for all $\sigma \in S_k$.

Given an $f \in L_k(V)$, we can define the *symmetrization* $Sf \in S_k(V)$, of f , as

$$Sf = \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} \sigma \cdot f. \quad (1.23)$$

One may, indeed, check that Sf is symmetric. Similarly, we can define the *alternation* $Af \in A_k(V)$, of f , as

$$Af = \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} \text{sgn}(\sigma) \sigma \cdot f. \quad (1.24)$$

1.2.1 The Tensor and Wedge Products

July 24th.

For any $f \in L_k(V)$ and $g \in L_l(V)$, we can define the *tensor product* $f \otimes g \in L_{k+l}(V)$ as

$$(f \otimes g)(v_1, \dots, v_{k+l}) = f(v_1, \dots, v_k)g(v_{k+1}, \dots, v_{k+l}). \quad (1.25)$$

Verify that $f \otimes g$ is indeed $(k+l)$ -linear. We are interested in the tensor product of alternating tensors, so let $f \in A_k(V)$ and $g \in A_l(V)$. Then, we can define the *wedge product* $f \wedge g \in A_{k+l}(V)$ as

$$f \wedge g = \frac{1}{k!l!} A(f \otimes g) = \frac{1}{k!l!} \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\sigma) \sigma \cdot (f \otimes g). \quad (1.26)$$

The associativity of the tensor product holds easily: for $f \in L_k(V)$, $g \in L_l(V)$, and $h \in L_m(V)$,

$$(f \otimes g) \otimes h = f \otimes (g \otimes h). \quad (1.27)$$

Proposition 1.6. For $f \in A_k(V)$ and $g \in A_l(V)$, we have

$$f \wedge g = (-1)^{kl} g \wedge f. \quad (1.28)$$

Proof. We shall show that $A(f \otimes g) = (-1)^{kl} A(g \otimes f)$. To this end, fix the permutation $\tau \in S_{k+l}$ defined by

$$\tau = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 2 & \cdots & l & l+1 & l+2 & \cdots & l+k \\ k+1 & k+2 & \cdots & k+l & 1 & 2 & \cdots & k \end{pmatrix}. \quad (1.29)$$

We have

$$\begin{aligned} A(f \otimes g)(v_1, \dots, v_{k+l}) &= \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\sigma) f(v_{\sigma(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma(k)}) g(v_{\sigma(k+1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma(k+l)}) \\ &= \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\sigma) f(v_{\sigma\tau(l+1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma\tau(l+k)}) g(v_{\sigma\tau(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma\tau(l)}) \\ &= \text{sgn}(\tau) \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\sigma\tau) f(v_{\sigma\tau(l+1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma\tau(l+k)}) g(v_{\sigma\tau(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma\tau(l)}) \\ &= \text{sgn}(\tau) A(g \otimes f)(v_1, \dots, v_{k+l}). \end{aligned} \quad (1.30)$$

With $\text{sgn}(\tau) = (-1)^{kl}$, the proof is complete. $\blacksquare$

Corollary 1.7. For $f \in A_k(V)$, we have $f \wedge f = 0$ if k is odd.

Proof. Easy since $f \wedge f = (-1)^{k^2} f \wedge f = -f \wedge f$ if k is odd, so $f \wedge f = 0$. $\blacksquare$

Lemma 1.8. For $f \in L_k(V)$ and $g \in L_l(V)$, we have

$$A(Af \otimes g) = k! A(f \otimes g), \quad A(f \otimes Ag) = l! A(f \otimes g). \quad (1.31)$$

Proof. We shall prove the first equality; the second follows similarly. We have

$$\begin{aligned} A(Af \otimes g) &= \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\sigma) \sigma \cdot \left(\sum_{\tau \in S_k} \text{sgn}(\tau) (\tau \cdot f) \otimes g \right) = \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\sigma) \sigma \cdot \left(\sum_{\tau \in S_k} \text{sgn}(\tau) \tau \cdot (f \otimes g) \right) \\ &= \sum_{\tau \in S_k} \sum_{\sigma \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\sigma\tau) \sigma\tau \cdot (f \otimes g) = k! \sum_{\alpha \in S_{k+l}} \text{sgn}(\alpha) \alpha \cdot (f \otimes g) = k! A(f \otimes g). \end{aligned} \quad (1.32)$$

Proposition 1.9. The wedge product is associative, i.e. for $f \in A_k(V)$, $g \in A_l(V)$, and $h \in A_m(V)$, we have

$$(f \wedge g) \wedge h = f \wedge (g \wedge h). \quad (1.33)$$

Proof. We have

$$\begin{aligned} (f \wedge g) \wedge h &= \frac{1}{(k+l)!m!} A((f \wedge g) \otimes h) = \frac{1}{(k+l)!m!k!l!} A(A(f \otimes g) \otimes h) = \frac{(k+l)!}{(k+l)!l!k!m!} A((f \otimes g) \otimes h) \\ &= \frac{1}{k!l!m!} A(f \otimes g \otimes h) = f \wedge (g \wedge h). \end{aligned} \quad (1.34)$$

Corollary 1.10. $f \wedge g \wedge h = \frac{1}{k!l!m!} A(f \otimes g \otimes h)$ for $f \in A_k(V)$, $g \in A_l(V)$, and $h \in A_m(V)$. Inductively,

$$f_1 \wedge \cdots \wedge f_k = \frac{1}{k_1! \cdots k_k!} A(f_1 \otimes \cdots \otimes f_k), \quad (1.35)$$

where $f_i \in A_{k_i}(V)$ for $1 \leq i \leq k$.

Proposition 1.11. Let $\alpha^1, \dots, \alpha^n \in V^V = A_1(V) = L_1(V)$, and $v_1, \dots, v_k \in V$. Then

$$(\alpha^1 \wedge \cdots \wedge \alpha^k)(v_1, \dots, v_k) = \det(\alpha^i(v_j))_{1 \leq i, j \leq k}. \quad (1.36)$$

Proof. We have

$$\begin{aligned} (\alpha^1 \wedge \cdots \wedge \alpha^k)(v_1, \dots, v_k) &= \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} \text{sgn}(\sigma) (\alpha^1 \otimes \cdots \otimes \alpha^k)(v_{\sigma(1)}, \dots, v_{\sigma(k)}) \\ &= \sum_{\sigma \in S_k} \text{sgn}(\sigma) \alpha^1(v_{\sigma(1)}) \alpha^2(v_{\sigma(2)}) \cdots \alpha^k(v_{\sigma(k)}) = \det(\alpha^i(v_j))_{1 \leq i, j \leq k}. \end{aligned} \quad (1.37)$$

■

July 27th.

Let V be an $\mathbb{R}$ -vector space with basis $e_1, \dots, e_n$, and V^V be its dual space with dual basis $\alpha^1, \dots, \alpha^n$. Moreover, let I be a multi-index of length k , i.e. $I = (i_1, \dots, i_k)$ with $1 \leq i_1, \dots, i_k \leq n$. We define $e_I := (e_{i_1}, \dots, e_{i_k}) \in V^k$ and $\alpha^I := \alpha^{i_1} \wedge \cdots \wedge \alpha^{i_k} \in A_k(V)$. Then, a k -linear form $f \in L_k(V)$ is completely determined by its values on the e_I , and an alternating k -linear form $f \in A_k(V)$ is completely determined by its values on the e_I with $i_1 < i_2 < \cdots < i_k$.

To this end, we first claim that $\alpha^I(e_J) = \delta_J^I$ for all multi-indices I, J of length k . Indeed, if $J = (j_1, \dots, j_k)$ with $j_1 < j_2 < \cdots < j_k$, then

$$\alpha^I(e_J) = \det(\alpha^{i_m}(e_{j_n}))_{1 \leq m, n \leq k}; \quad (1.38)$$

. this is 1 for $I = J$. Suppose $I \neq J$. Let $1 \leq l \leq k$ be the first index where $i_l \neq j_l$. Then the l^{th} row of $\alpha^{i_m}(e_{j_n})_{1 \leq m, n \leq k}$ is an all zeroes row, and hence $\det(\alpha^{i_m}(e_{j_n}))_{1 \leq m, n \leq k} = 0$. Thus, $\alpha^I(e_J) = \delta_J^I$. We now claim that α^I , for strictly increasing multi-indices I of length k , form a basis for $A_k(V)$. For linear independence, we simply have (the sums in this context are over strictly increasing multi-indices I of length k):

$$\sum_I c_I \alpha^I = 0 \implies \sum_I c_I \alpha^I(e_J) = 0 \implies c_J = 0, \quad \forall J. \quad (1.39)$$

To show that they span $A_k(V)$, let $f \in A_k(V)$. Then consider the k -linear form

$$g = \sum_I f(e_I) \alpha^I. \quad (1.40)$$

We show that $f = g$; it is enough to prove that $f(e_J) = g(e_J)$ for all strictly increasing multi-indices J of length k . We have

$$g(e_J) = \sum_I f(e_I) \alpha^I(e_J) = f(e_J) \alpha^J(e_J) + \sum_{I \neq J} f(e_I) \alpha^I(e_J) = f(e_J). \quad (1.41)$$

Corollary 1.12. $A_k(V) = 0$ if $k > n$. Further, $\dim A_k(V) = \binom{n}{k}$ if $1 \leq k \leq n$.

1.3 Building Blocks for Manifolds

Recall that we had defined the class of germs $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ of C^∞ functions at a point $p \in \mathbb{R}^n$, which agree on some neighbourhood of p . One can show that $C_p^\infty(\mathbb{R}^n)$ and $C_p^\infty(U)$ are isomorphic as $\mathbb{R}$ -algebras, where $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is an open neighbourhood of p . Note that we term $T_p(U) = T_p(\mathbb{R}^n) = \mathbb{R}^n$ as the *tangent space* of U (or $\mathbb{R}$) at p .

Definition 1.13. Let $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ be an open subset. A *vector field* on U is a function $X : U \rightarrow \coprod_{p \in U} T_p(\mathbb{R}^n)$ such that $X(p) \in T_p(\mathbb{R}^n)$ for all $p \in U$. In particular,

$$X(p) = \sum_{i=1}^n a^i(p) \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i} \Big|_p, \quad a^i(p) \in \mathbb{R}. \quad (1.42)$$

We can rewrite this as

$$X = \sum_{i=1}^n a^i \frac{\partial}{\partial x^i}, \quad a^i : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}. \quad (1.43)$$

X is called a *smooth vector field* if each a^i is a smooth function on U . The set of all smooth vector fields on U is denoted by $\mathfrak{X}(U)$.

This is a real vector space; note that for $X, Y \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$, we have $X + Y \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$, and for $\lambda \in \mathbb{R}$, we have $\lambda X \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$. Further, $\mathfrak{X}(U)$ is a $C^\infty(U)$ -module since for $f \in C^\infty(U)$ and $X \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$, we have $fX \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$, where

$$(fX)(p) = f(p)X(p), \quad p \in U. \quad (1.44)$$

Notice that $X \in \mathfrak{X}(U)$ describes a map $C^\infty(U) \rightarrow C^\infty(U)$, where $f \mapsto Xf$, being defined as $(Xf)(p) = X_p f$. This is a derivation on $C^\infty(U)$, since for $f, g \in C^\infty(U)$, we have

$$(X(fg))(p) = X_p(fg) = f(p)X_p g + g(p)X_p f = (fXg)(p) + (gXf)(p). \quad (1.45)$$

We refine our definition of a derivation as follows.

Definition 1.14. Let K be a field, and A be a K -algebra. A *derivation* $D : A \rightarrow A$ is an $\mathbb{R}$ -linear map satisfying the Leibniz rule $D(ab) = aD(b) + bD(a)$ for all $a, b \in A$.

Definition 1.15. A *differential 1-form* on U is a smooth function $\omega : U \rightarrow \coprod_{p \in U} T_p(\mathbb{R}^n)^V$ such that $\omega(p) \in T_p(\mathbb{R}^n)^V =: T_p^*(\mathbb{R}^n)$ for all $p \in U$.

For example, for $f \in C^\infty(U)$, we can define the differential 1-form df on U by $df(p) = df_p \in \text{Hom}_{\mathbb{R}}(T_p \mathbb{R}^n, \mathbb{R})$, where $df_p(X) = X_p f$ for all $X \in T_p \mathbb{R}^n$. In particular, dx^i is a differential 1-form on U for all $1 \leq i \leq n$. In fact, $\{dx^1, \dots, dx^n\}$ is the dual basis of $T_p^* \mathbb{R}^n$ corresponding to the basis $\{\frac{\partial}{\partial x^1} \Big|_p, \dots, \frac{\partial}{\partial x^n} \Big|_p\}$ of $T_p \mathbb{R}^n$. Thus, a differential 1-form ω on U can be expressed as

$$\omega(p) = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i(p) dx^i \Big|_p, \quad a_i : U \rightarrow \mathbb{R}. \quad (1.46)$$

$T_p^*(\mathbb{R}^n)$, here, is termed the *cotangent space* of $\mathbb{R}^n$ at p . Thus, our current setup is as follows: $V = T_p \mathbb{R}^n$, and $V^V = T_p^* \mathbb{R}^n$. The basis for $T_p \mathbb{R}^n$ considered is $\{\frac{\partial}{\partial x^1} \Big|_p, \dots, \frac{\partial}{\partial x^n} \Big|_p\}$, and the corresponding dual basis for $T_p^* \mathbb{R}^n$ is $\{dx^1 \Big|_p, \dots, dx^n \Big|_p\}$. And finally, we have

$$A_k(T_p \mathbb{R}^n) = \text{the space of alternating } k\text{-linear forms on } T_p \mathbb{R}^n \quad (1.47)$$

which has the basis $\{dx^{i_1} \Big|_p \wedge \dots \wedge dx^{i_k} \Big|_p \mid 1 \leq i_1 < \dots < i_k \leq n\}$.

Definition 1.16. A *differential k -form* on U is a smooth function $\omega : U \rightarrow \coprod_{p \in U} A_k(T_p \mathbb{R}^n)$ such that $\omega(p) \in A_k(T_p \mathbb{R}^n)$ for all $p \in U$.

Any such ω may be written as $\omega = \sum_I a_I dx_I$. It is termed a smooth differential k -form if each a_I is a smooth function on U . The set of all smooth differential 1-forms on U is denoted by $\Omega^1(U)$, and the set

of all smooth differential k -forms on U is denoted by $\Omega^k(U)$. Both these sets are $\mathbb{R}$ -vector spaces, and $\Omega^k(U)$ is a free $C^\infty(U)$ -module of rank $\binom{n}{k}$. The isomorphism may be given as

$$\Omega^1(U) \cong C^\infty(U)^{\oplus \binom{n}{1}}, \quad \omega = \sum_I a_I dx_I \mapsto (a_1, a_2, \dots, a_{\binom{n}{1}}). \quad (1.48)$$

We can endow $\Omega^k(U)$ with the wedge product $\wedge : \Omega^k(U) \times \Omega^l(U) \rightarrow \Omega^{k+l}(U)$, defined as

$$(\omega \wedge \eta)(p) = \omega(p) \wedge \eta(p), \quad p \in U, \quad (1.49)$$

or

$$\omega \wedge \eta = \sum_{I, J} a_I b_J dx_I \wedge dx_J \quad (1.50)$$

where I and J are strictly increasing multi-indices of length k and l , respectively. Note that if $I \cap J \neq \emptyset$, then $dx_I \wedge dx_J = 0$. Thus, the sum may be taken over all strictly increasing multi-indices I and J of length k and l , respectively, such that $I \cap J = \emptyset$. Also,

$$A_*(V) = \bigoplus_{k=0}^n A_k(V) \quad (1.51)$$

is defined as the *exterior algebra* of V . The wedge product on here is associative and anti-commutative. We define $\Omega^0(U) = C^\infty(U)$. The map $d : \Omega^k(U) \rightarrow \Omega^{k+1}(U)$ is defined as the *exterior derivative*; for $k = 0$, we have

$$d : C^\infty(U) \rightarrow \Omega^1(U), \quad f \mapsto df = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} dx^i. \quad (1.52)$$

For a k -form $\omega = \sum_I a_I dx_I \in \Omega^k(U)$, we have

$$d\omega = \sum_I da_I \wedge dx_I = \sum_I \sum_{j=1}^n \frac{\partial a_I}{\partial x^j} dx^j \wedge dx_I. \quad (1.53)$$

Example 1.17. Let $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^3$. Let us call the coordinates $x^1 = x$, $x^2 = y$, and $x^3 = z$. The only non-zero forms are $\Omega^0(U)$, $\Omega^1(U)$, $\Omega^2(U)$, and $\Omega^3(U)$. Note that $\Omega^0(U) = C^\infty(U)$, and there's nothing to say about this. For $\Omega^1(U)$, a form looks like $f dx + g dy + h dz$ for $f, g, h \in C^\infty(U)$. For $\Omega^2(U)$, a form looks like $R dx \wedge dy + Q dx \wedge dz + P dy \wedge dz$ for $f, g, h \in C^\infty(U)$.

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The map $\Omega^1(U) \times \mathfrak{X}(U) \rightarrow C^\infty(U)$, defined as $(\omega, X) \mapsto \omega(X)$, is $\mathbb{R}$ -bilinear. In particular, for $\omega = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i dx^i$ and $X = \sum_{j=1}^n b^j \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}$, we have

$$\omega(X) = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i dx^i \left(\sum_{j=1}^n b^j \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j} \right) = \sum_{i=1}^n a_i b^i \in C^\infty(U). \quad (1.54)$$

Extending this, we have the map $\Omega^k(U) \times \mathfrak{X}(U)^k \rightarrow C^\infty(U)$, defined as $(\omega, X_1, \dots, X_k) \mapsto \omega(X_1, \dots, X_k)$, which is $\mathbb{R}$ -multilinear. In particular, for $\omega = \sum_I b_I dx^I$ and $X_i = \sum_{j=1}^n a_i^j \frac{\partial}{\partial x^j}$, we have

$$\omega(X_1, \dots, X_k) = \sum_I b_I a_{i_1}^1 \cdots a_{i_k}^k \in C^\infty(U) \quad (1.55)$$

using the fact that $dx^I(\frac{\partial}{\partial x^{i_1}}, \dots, \frac{\partial}{\partial x^{i_k}}) = 1$ if the multi-index matches, and 0 otherwise.

1.3.1 Exterior Differentiation

Here, d_k shall denote the map $d_k : \Omega^k(U) \rightarrow \Omega^{k+1}(U)$, defined as the *exterior derivative*. The subscript k is often omitted, and we simply write $d : \Omega^k(U) \rightarrow \Omega^{k+1}(U)$. For $k = 0$, we have

$$d : C^\infty(U) \rightarrow \Omega^1(U), \quad f \mapsto df = \sum_{i=1}^n \frac{\partial f}{\partial x^i} dx^i. \quad (1.56)$$

Analogously, for a general k -form $\omega = \sum_I a_I dx^I \in \Omega^k(U)$, we have

$$d : \Omega^k(U) \rightarrow \Omega^{k+1}(U), \quad \omega \mapsto d\omega = \sum_I da_I \wedge dx^I = \sum_I \sum_{j=1}^n \frac{\partial a_I}{\partial x^j} dx^j \wedge dx^I. \quad (1.57)$$

All the d maps are $\mathbb{R}$ -linear, but not $C^\infty(U)$ -linear. Also, for two forms $\omega \in \Omega^k(U)$ and $\eta \in \Omega^l(U)$, we have

$$d(\omega \wedge \eta) = d\omega \wedge \eta + (-1)^k \omega \wedge d\eta. \quad (1.58)$$

This is known as *antiderivation*. Moreover, $d_{k+1} \circ d_k = d^2 = 0$. Both these properties may be verified by the reader. Now suppose we have another map $D : \Omega^k(U) \rightarrow \Omega^{k+1}(U)$ which is $\mathbb{R}$ -linear, satisfies antiderivation, and $D^2 = 0$, and $Df = df$ for all $f \in C^\infty(U)$. Then $D = d$; the exterior derivative is unique. Thus, a chain of maps is formed:

$$0 \xrightarrow{d} C^\infty(U) \xrightarrow{d} \Omega^1(U) \xrightarrow{d} \Omega^2(U) \xrightarrow{d} \cdots \xrightarrow{d} \Omega^n(U) \xrightarrow{d} 0 \quad \text{for open } U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n. \quad (1.59)$$

An $\omega \in \Omega^k(U)$ is called an *exact k -form* if $\omega = d\eta$ for some $\eta \in \Omega^{k-1}(U)$. It is called a *closed k -form* if $d\omega = 0$. Note that every exact form is closed, but the converse is not true in general. We will refine the following later: quotienting the space of closed k -forms by the space of exact k -forms gives us the *de Rham cohomology* of U , denoted by $H_{\text{dR}}^k(U)$.

1.4 Manifolds

Definition 1.18. A topological space M is termed a *topological manifold* of dimension n if

1. M is Hausdorff,
2. M is second countable (that is, has a countable basis), and
3. for all $p \in M$, there exists an open neighbourhood $U \subseteq M$ and a homeomorphism $\varphi : U \rightarrow \varphi(U) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$, where $\varphi(U)$ is open. This makes a manifold *locally euclidean*.

The *invariance of dimension* property states that if we have two open sets $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ and $V \subseteq \mathbb{R}^m$ such that U is homeomorphic to V , then $m = n$. Thus, the dimension of a topological manifold is well-defined.

Definition 1.19. A pair (U, φ) is called a *coordinate chart* on M if $U \subseteq M$ is open and $\varphi : U \rightarrow \varphi(U) \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is a homeomorphism.

A trivial example is $\mathbb{R}^n$ with one (coordinate) chart $(\mathbb{R}^n, \text{id}_{\mathbb{R}^n})$. In fact, if $U \subseteq \mathbb{R}^n$ is open, then (U, id_U) is a coordinate chart. Note that subspaces inherit the properties of Hausdorffness and second countability. We state some properties without proof; if X is locally Euclidean but not T_2 , then X being a topological manifold implies that the number of connected (or path connected) components is at most countable.

Definition 1.20. Two charts (U, φ) and (V, ψ) on a topological manifold M are said to be *C^∞ -compatible* if either

1. $U \cap V = \emptyset$, or
2. $U \cap V \neq \emptyset$, and the transition maps $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1} : \varphi(U \cap V) \rightarrow \psi(U \cap V)$ and $\varphi \circ \psi^{-1} : \psi(U \cap V) \rightarrow \varphi(U \cap V)$ are C^∞ -maps between open subsets of $\mathbb{R}^n$.

Similarly, C^k -compatibility may be defined for $k \geq 0$. A C^ω -manifold is termed to be a real analytic manifold. In case of $k = 2m$, then $\mathbb{R}^{2m}$ is identified with $\mathbb{C}^m$, and the transition maps are required to be holomorphic.

Definition 1.21. M is a C^∞ -manifold or a *smooth manifold* if M is a topological manifold and there exists a family of charts $\{(U_\alpha, \varphi_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$ such that

1. $\{U_\alpha\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$ is an open cover of M , and
2. $(U_\alpha, \varphi_\alpha)$ and (U_β, φ_β) are C^∞ -compatible for all $\alpha, \beta \in \Lambda$.

Similarly, C^k -manifolds, C^ω -manifolds, and complex manifolds may be defined. The family of charts $\{(U_\alpha, \varphi_\alpha)\}_{\alpha \in \Lambda}$ is called an *atlas* of M .

The most basic non-trivial example is perhaps the circle $S^1 = \{(x, y) \in \mathbb{R}^2 \mid x^2 + y^2 = 1\}$, which is a C^∞ -manifold of dimension 1. We can think of $\mathbb{R}^2$ as $\mathbb{C}$. Let $U = S^1 \setminus \{1\} = \{e^{it} \mid 0 < t < 2\pi\}$ and $V = S^1 \setminus \{-1\} = \{e^{it} \mid -\pi < t < \pi\}$. Then (U, φ) and (V, ψ) are charts, where $\varphi : U \rightarrow (0, 2\pi) \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is defined as $e^{it} \mapsto t$ and $\psi : V \rightarrow (-\pi, \pi) \subseteq \mathbb{R}$ is defined as $e^{it} \mapsto t$. Here, $U \cap V = \{e^{it} \mid 0 < t < \pi\} \cup \{e^{-t} \mid \pi < t < 2\pi, -\pi < t < 0\}$. The transition maps are $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1} : (0, \pi) \rightarrow (0, \pi)$ defined as $t \mapsto t$ and $\psi \circ \varphi^{-1} : (\pi, 2\pi) \rightarrow (-\pi, 0)$ defined as $t \mapsto t - 2\pi$. Both these maps are smooth, and hence the charts are compatible. Thus, S^1 is a smooth manifold of dimension 1.

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